

EARLY COLONIAL ENCOUNTERS AND IDENTITIES IN THE CARIBBEAN: A REVIEW OF SOME RECENT WORKS AND THEIR IMPLICATIONS¹

Thomas C. Patterson

Who controls the past controls the future;
who controls the present controls the past.

George Orwell

Massive celebrations are planned for 1992 to mark the 500th anniversary of Christopher Columbus' (a.k.a. Cristóbal Colón) first voyage to the Caribbean. Millions of dollars have already been spent to promote the celebrations, and millions more will be expended before then to ensure that the public adopts a proper perspective regarding the intent and consequences of the venture he organized. Most of the money will go to protect of fine-tune Columbus' image as a heroic figure, a penniless immigrant from Genoa, who struggled against nature, the Europeans' ignorance of geography resulting from their superstitions and pre-scientific attitudes, and the increasing stinginess of sponsors, who quickly tired of his repeated failures to produce the returns they expected on their investments.¹ The trials and tribulations of Cristóbal Colón will be presented in coffee-table books, academic treatises, TV documentaries, and probably a Hollywood movie or two, perhaps even one starring Ronald Reagan as the venerable old Admiral obsessed with a vision and a sense of mission. For the most part, they promise to reproduce the received heritage, modifying it slightly to absorb new facts derived from archival searches and archaeological excavations or those generated by computer programmers who construct high-tech simulations of

Colón's sailing directions and ports of call in the Antilles themselves and in the countries on the margins of the Caribbean Sea, where it buttresses racism, conservative political agendas and entrepreneurial activities like the gentrification of old San Juan.

Colón himself laid the foundations for the earliest version of the Columbus legend, when he stepped off the boat in Lisbon in March, 1493, and announced that the Indies contained vast riches, as well as peaceful savages and cannibals. A mere three years later, the Admiral's stories about the fabled wealth of the region were questioned when he returned to Spain without the quantities of gold and spices he had promised earlier. As a result of his inability to quell civil unrest in Española and to reorganize its economy, the Crown replaced him as Governor of the Indies in 1499. Colón's son, Ferdinand, responded by erecting a new version of the myth, as he sought to maintain his father's reputation and legal claims, portraying him as "... a paragon of vision and virtue who was brought low by his enemies."² The revised account, which emphasizes the Admiral's humanity, still guides much of the apologist literature about European penetration into the Caribbean region.³ It was revived in the late 19th century by upper-class historians in the islands who were simultaneously menaced by U.S. imperialism and harassed by separatist movements.⁴

Thomas C. Patterson is a professor of Anthropology and History at Temple University, Philadelphia, PA, U.S.A.

Dialectical Anthropology, 16: 1-13, 1991.

© 1991 Kluwer Academic Publishers. Printed in the Netherlands.

This literature incorporates Colón's tales that the Antilles were inhabited simultaneously by peaceful savages and cruel cannibals.⁵ In it, the apologists argue for the moral superiority of Spanish culture and the inferiority of the indigenous peoples and the African slaves brought against their will to the Americas. However, they also have to confront the issues of murder, enslavement, theft, and extortion. While acknowledging that these practices unfortunately occurred, they want to suggest that they were not widespread activities but isolated incidents. The explorers and colonists only murdered or enslaved cannibals; they merely stole produce and extorted labor from the rest. These occasional displays of lamentable behavior are ultimately understandable, since the colonists were merely defending themselves. Anyway, they pale by comparison to the gifts of civilization and Christianity the Spaniards brought to the Antilles. In fact, the apologists continue, Queen Isabella—at the urging of theologians and African slave traders who disliked the competition posed by Columbus—prohibited Indian slavery in 1500. But three years later, as the demand for slaves increased, she once again permitted the capture and enslavement of cannibals. In other words, as John Elliott observed, "exceptions were made," and the Spaniards "... had no difficulty finding pretexts for the enslavement of numerous men, women, and children."⁶

In recent years, Jalil Sued Badillo has written two of the most powerful challenges to the Columbus myth constructed and perpetuated by apologists. In *Los Caribes: Realidad o Fabula; Ensayos de Rectificación Histórica* (Río Piedras: Editorial Antillana, 1978), Sued, like Carl Sauer before him, argues that Columbus raided for slaves as a way of sustaining the colonial enterprise until gold, the real

prize he sought, could be found in quantities. To provide the thinnest veil of legitimacy for this activity, the Admiral claimed there were two Antillean social formations with distinctive cultures: the relatively peaceful Taino of the Greater Antilles, and the cruel, cannibalistic Caribs who inhabited the Lesser Antilles. The difference between them, he claimed, was that the Taino offered no resistance, while cannibals opposed his advances or at least looked like they might. Thus, resistance or actions perceived as threatening were the sole bases for his claims that some Antillean peoples ate other human beings. Columbus then used this reasoning to argue that, if the inhabitants of an island even looked like they might offer resistance, they were cannibals who could be attacked with impunity and enslaved. He took a dozen native American slaves to Lisbon after the first voyage. By 1500, he had shipped almost two thousand native Americans to the Canary Islands and the slave markets of Europe.⁷ It took the colonists virtually no time at all to locate and identify Carib communities on the mainland. The enslavement of native peoples in Central American and northern South America, as well as the Antilles, was extensive during the first three decades of exploration and colonization.⁸

On the basis of no better evidence than he presented in 1493, the apologists continued to accept Colón's claim that there were two societies in the Antilles, distinguished from each other by origin, appearance, language, culture, and the intensity of their hostility and cruelty toward Europeans. The Caribs, especially the men, have been portrayed as being exceptionally ferocious; for instance:

The *Caribs* had a strong national consciousness. To distinguish themselves from the *Arawak*, they used the term *Calinago* or

Calino, which was corrupted by Columbus to *Caribales*, and later to *Carib* . . . *Carib* men and women had certain differences in language, which may have been due to the fact that many of the women had been captured from *Arawak* . . . The *Carib* were more robust than the *Arawak*. They had well-developed, flexible bodies and broad buttocks and shoulders . . . When at ease they tended to be melancholy; when aroused they became truculent and vindictive.⁹

This implies that Caribs were antagonistic not only toward Europeans but also toward their more peaceful *Arawak* neighbors. They have been portrayed as late-comers to the Caribbean who came from South America—marauders who relentlessly moved northward through the small islands, killing the *Arawak* men and marrying the women, as they approached their ultimate objective, the Greater Antilles.¹⁰ Their bellicosity, the apologists argue, was due to the fact that the Spaniards interrupted their expansionist endeavors.¹¹ Completely absent, of course, from this representation of the Caribs as warlike is any reference to the practices of the Spaniards that must have conditioned and shaped how the Caribs perceived them—slave raids, murder, theft, and extortion are a few that come easily to mind.

Sued examines the events and evidence that constitute the basis for the claim that there were two distinctive kinds of Antillean society: Taino and Carib. He concludes that none of it—neither the historical nor the linguistic, nor the archaeological evidence—is particularly compelling. In fact, as he points out, the inhabitants of some of the Lesser Antilles—e.g., Trinidad and Santa Cruz—were first identified as Caribs, then as Taino or *Arawak*, and then again as Caribs; the shifts in how they were represented did not reflect uncertainty or even more accurate information but was

rather a matter of expedience due to the appearance of new economic demands between 1506 and 1511: the need for native laborers to look for pearls in the waters off Cubagua and Margarita.¹²

Neither the historical nor the linguistic evidence provides convincing support for distinguishing between Taino and Carib, because, as Sued¹³ observes, the colonization of the Lesser Antilles occurred after 1624, as a result of French and British incursions into the region. The Spanish attempts to occupy them were largely fruitless. They lacked mineral wealth; the natives were hostile; and the mainland offered more attractive opportunities, particularly after the invasion of Mexico in 1519. Thus, comparison of the early Spanish chronicles describing everyday life and history in the Greater Antilles and the French and English counts of the Lesser Antilles, including the Carib grammars and the dictionaries published after 1658, is not a simple, straight-forward task. It is problematic, because they are based on observations separated by more than a century, and the 17th-century French grammars and dictionaries necessarily reflect what happened to the inhabitants of the Lesser Antilles during the intervening years.

The linguistic arguments revolve around the question of whether or not the inhabitants of the Greater and Lesser Antilles spoke truly different languages, as Columbus claimed. The current picture painted by linguists is that, with reservations, the inhabitants of both the large and small islands spoke closely related languages or dialects that belong the Arawakan language family.¹⁴ Thus, they concur with the 16th-century Spanish chroniclers, Bartolomé Las Casa or Gonzalo Fernández de Oviedo de Valdés, who noted the existence of regional dialects of Taino in Española and observed that these linguistic differences did not impede effective

communication on the island or between the inhabitants of different islands in the Greater Antilles;¹⁵ they further argue that the languages or dialects of the large and small islands were mutually intelligible. Their first reservation is that the "Island Carib" language, recorded in the 17th century, was a pidgin language resulting from socioeconomic processes that took people from the Lesser Antilles to the mainland, where they were thrust into contact with peoples who spoke Carib languages.¹⁶ Their second reservation, clearly related to that first, is that there were gender distinctions in Island Caribe; for reasons that are not immediately obvious, women either did not use some of the same terms as men or did not use certain words or phrases in their presence.¹⁷

Sued¹⁸ also comments on the archaeologists' failure to confront and resolve conclusively the question of whether the Taino and Carib were distinct, historically constituted social formations, each with its own particular culture, rather than the fantastic creations and projections—ideological representations—of the Admiral and his followers as they attempted to justify and legitimate their actions. He proceeds to point out Columbian history of the Antilles. Some archaeologists argue there were no significant cultural differences between the Greater and Lesser Antilles;¹⁹ others argue there was a distinctive Carib cultural complex in the Lesser Antilles,²⁰ and still others claim that the differences were real but left no clear-cut traces in the archaeological record.²¹ For the last fifty years, a majority of archaeologists have argued that the Carib were different from the Taino; their explanations of the archaeological record vacillate between claims that the two societies possessed distinctive cultural complexes and assertions that they shared a common material culture repertoire. The

uncertainty manifested in the hegemonic view suggests that its proponents have not yet been able to dispose effectively of counterclaims which assert that the differences in 15th-century Antillean culture were the product of social and political-economic processes rather than ethnic origin.

Irving Rouse²² established the hegemonic framework for interpreting the pre-Columbian history of the Antilles in the late 1930's; his analytical categories, methods, and views have dominated the field for the past fifty years. The inability of the archaeologists to deal with the Carib issue, Sued argues, is a result of this framework and the questions they ask. From his perspective, their thinking is overwhelmingly typological, reductionist, and concerned almost exclusively with tracing patterns of migration and diffusion. It is typological in the sense that historical patterns are constructed largely in terms of modes or norms of pottery decoration, which the members of a society learn and carry with them when they move. It is reductionist in the sense that (1) it focuses on the products of observable behavior—i.e., pottery decoration and associated artifacts—rather than the social relations, actions, and circumstances that structure and constrain this behavior; and (2) it conceptualizes historical, sociocultural processes in terms of analytical categories—i.e., mutation, gene flow, selection, adaptation, or island biogeography—that have been appropriated uncritically from studies of biological evolution, genetics, and ecology.

However, there are other problems with the hegemonic conceptual and analytical framework that Sued does not explore sufficiently. One is that a majority of the archaeologists working in the Antilles, especially the North Americans, tacitly and uncritically

endorse Rouse's views (i) that history and archaeology have different objects of inquiry, and (ii) that the archaeological record is not forthcoming with evidence that sheds light on the kinds of questions asked by historians concerned with social or political-economic processes—e.g., class or state formation.²³ Fortunately, this perspective and its theoretical underpinnings have been questioned in recent years by an increasing number of archaeologists and historians working in the West Indies who argue, correctly, that information relevant for answering questions about social and political-economic processes can be recuperated from the archaeological record.²⁴ They conclude that Rouse's conceptual and interpretive scaffolding, as well as the Taino-Carib dichotomy it supports, should both be rejected.²⁵

Francisco Moscoso's *Tribu y Clases en el Caribe Antiguo* (San Pedro de Macoris: Ediciones de la Universidad Central del Este, 1986) is both an extended critique and a running commentary on the interpretive schemes deployed by Rouse and others.²⁶ At the same time, it provides a theoretically informed alternative to them. Moscoso's aim is to construct a historical materialist explanation of the autochthonous development of the Antillean social formations encountered by the Spaniards in the waning years of the 15th century without invoking the migrationist logic and interpretations of the dominant archaeological paradigm. His thesis is that the Taino chiefdoms of the Greater Antilles marked a transitional stage of historical development characterized by the simultaneous dissolution of the kin-based relations emerged when the members of one lineage began to exact tribute payments on a regular basis from their kin.²⁸ Tribute extraction—not slavery, the development of the productive forces, the appearance of private property, or the man-nature

dialectic—was the motor of social and political-economic change. According to Moscoso, this tribal-tribute mode of production appeared in the Greater Antilles about A.D. 1000.

In dealing with the archaeological record, Moscoso had to confront a major theoretical and methodological problem. As a result of the long-standing dominance of Rouse's interpretive framework, many data from the Antilles have been collected with certain questions in mind and presented in ways that resolve those issues but make it difficult to construct alternative explanations or to tackle other problems. Consequently, Moscoso continually had to deconstruct information that was meaningful in terms of one analytical and interpretive scheme and to reconstitute its significance or lack of significance in another framework. This means that, depending partly on one's theoretical preferences, a number of alternative reconstitutions of the evidence are possible; which, if any of them, is preferable will eventually be decided by testing against the widest possible array of theoretically constituted data.

Let me suggest alternatives to two of Moscoso's interpretations of reconstituted evidence. First, the Taino societies of the Greater and Lesser Antilles did not constitute a single, uniform social formation but rather a mosaic with a distinctly textured and uneven surface. They were the product of combined and uneven development. There were subtle but significant variations, not only between islands, but also even in different parts of the same island. This mosaic reflected the facts that the Taino had a complex historical past, lived in an area with highly varied ecological conditions, gave different emphasis to alternate elements in the forces and means of production with concomitant differences in the details of

the organization of labor and the production relations, and had linkages of varying kinds and intensities with mainland communities. Such an alternative can accept the validity of Tabío and Rey's claim that the Taino communities on Cuba were smaller and produced less surplus than those found elsewhere in the big islands; it incorporates their observations instead of dismissing them as little more than an instance of ideologically motivated posturing.²⁹ Second, there is no particularly good reason for arguing that chieftainships arose only after a thousand years or so of relative isolation, around A.D. 1000, in light of recent evidence from Vieques which suggests that status differences already existed in some Antillean communities by the beginning of the first millennium A.D.³⁰

Sued Badillo's second contribution to unraveling the implications of the Columbus myth and enhancing our understanding of early 16th-century Antillean society consists of the three chapters he wrote on freedmen, slaves, and cimarron communities in *Puerto Rico Negro* (Río Piedras: Editorial Cultural, 1986), a book that also includes a valuable discussion of the 17th and 18th centuries by Ángel López Cantos.³¹ The chapter on freedmen and women opens with a series of biographical sketches of former slaves who had either received manumission or purchased their freedom. He contextualizes the sketches and gives meaning to the stories they tell, by placing them in a larger painting created by the conditions that prevailed in Castile during the late 15th century and early 16th centuries. Let me elaborate two features of that painting.

First, one consequence of Castile and Portugal's struggle for hegemony over the Guinea coast of Africa from the mid-15th century onwards was the gradual introduction of a new slave population, largely African in origin, into Lisbon,

Valencia, and Seville; up to that time, most of the slaves in the Iberian Peninsula had come from Portuguese incursions into Morocco or been purchased in the great slave markets that appeared during the late 13th century in Crimea and at the mouth of the Don River. A 1460 municipal decree in Lisbon distinguished between "black and white slaves." The 1490's witnessed further additions to an already diverse slave population of Castile: several thousand native Americans, as well as an even greater number of Moors and Jews who were enslaved during the Reconquest of the Peninsula. By 1565, the more than 6000 slaves in Seville constituted one tenth of the city's population. During the early 16th century, there were also several thousand freedmen and women in Seville.³²

A second noteworthy feature of the background is the fact that the Castilian economy was in shambles after the *reconquista* in 1492. It was virtually destroyed (i) when more than one hundred thousand Moorish and Jewish artisans, local officials, and merchant-financiers were expelled from the Catholic kingdoms; (ii) when wool production and the export sector were promoted by the Crown in 1501 to the detriment of agriculture; (iii) when poor harvests from 1502 to 1509 drove up food prices; and (iv) when a rigid guild system was imposed on the commercial and industrial sectors of the economy and led to the stagnation of iron, silk, and cloth manufacturing—the kingdom's three leading industries.³³ Emigration to the Indies held out a glimmer of opportunity and hope for those who could afford it. It was an avenue of mobility, an escape, from the generally wretched conditions that prevailed in Castile for peasants, artisans, workers, and the unemployed. Furthermore, the desire of many to emigrate was undoubtedly fueled by the

Crown's promotion of agricultural production in the colony, in 1497, and by the incredible levels of intolerance that pervaded the Catholic kingdoms in this period; discrimination and struggle reflected the complex intersection of class, religion, gender, and nationality, as well as categories that resonated with ethnic and racial origins.³⁴

A considerable number of the immigrants to the Caribbean colonies between 1493 and c. 1530 were freed men and women—often persons of color, unmarried for the most part, and Christian—who came in search of work and the possibility of a better life. Once they arrived in the Indies, their everyday lives brought them into daily face-to-face contact with other colonists like themselves—individuals who came to farm, tend shops, wash clothes, pan for gold, drive wagons, make shoes, or to work as carpenters, artisans, and unskilled workers who undertake just about any job or chore to survive; they also rubbed shoulders on a regular basis with soldiers of fortune, poor sailors, failed prospectors and miners, petty officials, native Americans, slave hunters, and slaves who were brought against their will from various ports in the Americas, Europe, and Africa. While their work patterns contrasted with those of the slaves, especially the ones employed on the sugar plantations and cattle ranches, the freedmen and women were not segregated from them. Other freedmen and women in the colonies originally came as slaves and were manumitted or purchased their freedom when they arrived.³⁵ Their relations with the colonial authorities were frequently strained; for example, in 1503, two years before the first reported shipment of African slaves, Frey Nicolás de Ovando, who replaced Columbus as Governor and Judge of the Indies, was already complaining that acculturated, refugee *negros* were spreading bad habits among

the Indians.³⁶ By 1527, legislation, expressed in racial or quasi-racial terms but reflecting the hard economic realities of class and servile status, soon limited the kinds of work freed blacks could do prevented the from freeing other slaves through marriage, and stipulated that they must pay tribute.³⁷

The first shipment of African slaves—fifteen men brought to work as miners—landed in Santo Domingo in 1505. Their arrival signaled the victory of a very curious group of allies: the Queen, clergymen who protested the enslavement of native Americans on theological grounds, and Castilian merchants who engaged in the African slave trade and felt excluded from a potentially lucrative market in the Indies.³⁸ As I have already noted, some limitations were imposed on the enslavement of Indians as early as 1500; however, these regulations, with all their loopholes, seem only to have fueled the demand for slaves and the desire of Castilian slave traders working along the African coast to ship their human cargoes to the Antilles. The Crown also benefited: it was able to raise sorely needed revenues by imposing tariffs and issuing licenses for the export of slaves to the Indies. The only exemptions were granted to the nobility and high government officials. The slave merchants' reaction to the tariffs was to devise several new ways of defrauding the government. They began (i) to bring slaves directly from Africa to avoid customs payments on the Iberian Peninsula, or (ii) to pay the import duties in the Indies on the number of slaves that arrived rather than the number shipped. In addition, both Castilian and Portuguese dealers smuggled African slaves into the Antilles, as the demand for slaves, along with the tariffs and the cost of the import licenses, increased dramatically in the 1530s, after the Crown gained control of mining.³⁹

By 1530, there were already about 3000 slaves in Puerto Rico, brought from Santo Domingo, Seville, and a growing number of ports along the African coast. Most were men—the sex ratio was about five or six to one—who were owned or purchased by merchants, clerics, government officials, ranchers, and plantation owners. They worked as miners, clerks, tailors, butchers, blacksmiths, potters, tilemakers, masons, carpenters, apothecaries, physicians, and surgeons, to name only a few occupations mentioned. Although slaves were bought and sold, and their labor power even rented out on occasion, they were able to assert and retain control over certain aspects of their own subsistence production. This provided the potential for a small income and afforded them a measure of autonomy and control over their own lives. To curb their independence, to keep it within bounds, the slave owners and colonial officials of Puerto Rico used bullies and executioners, who were typically black, to discipline slaves—to administer corporal punishment, to torture, and to mutilate those individuals who stepped too far beyond the limits of acceptable behavior.⁴⁰

The continuing efforts of slaves to assert their autonomy and their responses to the colonists' abuse and attempts to dominate them, took various forms. The most important was that African slaves allied themselves almost immediately with native Americans, both the indigenous inhabitants of the islands and the Indian slaves who had been brought to the Antilles from Florida, Colombia, the Yucatán, Pánuco, and elsewhere. The slave uprisings of 1514 and 1531 in Puerto Rico and the 1522 insurrection in Española coincided, not accidentally Sued argues, with Indian revolts in the same areas. Slaves also ran away, abandoning the work assigned to them by their owners. These fugitives, the *cimarrones* as they were called, were

men and women, Indian and African. They were the vagrants and strangers in the towns, the robbers who assaulted travelers and stole from farms on their outskirts, and the runaways who entrenched themselves in inaccessible and easily defended areas, where they lived off the land and struggled to remain free.⁴¹ This suggests, from early onwards, that the African slaves and native Americans recognized the commonality of their interests and experiences; they had a sense of community that was continually forged and reproduced in their everyday lives by virtue of the places they shared in that system of exploitation called the colonial class structure. During the early decades, their most persistent acts of defiance and resistance involved destroying crops and freeing livestock. This created a real problem for the colonists, who acknowledged, in a 1512 letter written to the Casa de la Contratación in Seville, that they were unable to produce the food they required because of the ongoing war with the natives.⁴² The effects of the sabotage were still evident fifty years later, when strangers to the Greater Antilles typically remarked about the large numbers of cattle, hogs, and horses that ran wild over the islands.⁴³

The events set in motion by Columbus's arrival in the Antilles clearly had devastating and long-lasting consequences. Resistance and rebellion, as Sued points out, continually shaped these events. They were the dialectical response, the desires and struggles, of the multitudes who did most of the real work in the Indies to improve the quality of their lives. The tenacity of the indigenous peoples and slaves brought from Africa and other parts of the world to retain what they had, their truculent responses to Spanish efforts to dominate them, created the conditions for the continual reconstruction of Antillean

society and resurrection of the Carib myth. The Spaniards' systematic acts of repression and abuse did much to make their worst nightmares—about ferocious cannibals who would fight back—come to life. While there is still no evidence that the inhabitants of the Antilles ever ate people—either out of innate aggression, for revenge, for ritual purposes, or because they were just hungry—there is plenty of evidence that they vigorously opposed the Spaniards' attempts to murder, enslave, and steal from them.

Whether exploitation is ultimately rooted in pre-Colombian Antillean society, as Moscoso implies, or in the colonial experience, as Sued suggests, alternative constructions of the

Caribbean past and identity—that more accurately reflect and represent what actually happened—will only be possible when the founding myths and principles, guiding investigations, are deconstructed and exposed for what they are. Sued, Moscoso, and others have successfully launched the project to demystify the construction of Caribbean history. Their opening volleys already make one point very clear. Caribbean culture and identities were continually ongoing struggles between those who worked and those who lived off their labor. They were forged in the islands, not where the inhabitants or their ancestors came from.⁴⁴

Notes

1. Carl O. Sauer, *The Early Spanish Main* (Berkeley and Los Angeles: University of California Press, 1966, pp. 17, 71, 106) indicates that the Crown invested no public funds nor any of its own wealth to finance the first voyage; most of the money was raised by the royal household's keeper of accounts who borrowed it from the secret police. The second voyage, a commercial venture, which left Cadíz on September 23, 1493—seventeen ships and 1200-1500 men—was organized by Juan Rodríguez de Fonseca, the Archdeacon of Seville and a close ally of King Ferdinand, who watched over events in the Indies to ensure their profitability for the Crown.
2. *Ibid.*, p. 104.
3. For example, Demetrio Ramos Pérez, *El Descubrimiento "Humano" de América: Las Suposiciones Colombinas sobre los Caribes y su Importancia como Guía Conductora* (Granada: 490 Aniversario de las Capitulaciones de Santa Fe . . . , 1982).
4. Jalil Sued Badillo, *Los Caribes: Realidad o Fabula; Ensayos de Rectificación Histórica* (Río Piedras: Editorial Antillana, 1978), pp. 4-5; and Fernando Picó, 1898: *La Guerra despues de la Guerra* (Río Piedras; Ediciones Huracán, 1987).
5. Peter Hulme, *Colonial Encounters: Europe and the Native Caribbean, 1492-1797* (London and New York: Methuen, 1986), examines how Colón's account affected subsequent colonialist writings in the Americas, including those produced by professional anthropologists and archaeologists.
6. John H. Elliot, *Imperial Spain, 1469-1716* (Harmondsworth: Penguin Books, 1963), p. 70; Hulme, *ibid.*, pp. 70, 282 note 60.
7. Jalil Sued Badillo, *Cristóbal Colón y la Esclavitud del Indio en las Antillas* (San Juan: Fundación Arqueológica, Histórica de Puerto Rico, 1983). For discussions of

- slavery and slave markets in medieval Europe, see Charles Verlinden, *L'Esclavage dans l'Europe Médiévale*, tome 1, *Péninsule Ibérique-France* (Brugges: Riksuniversiteit te Gent, 1955), pp. 181-632; and Daniel Evans, "Slave Coast of Europe," *Slavery and Abolition*, vol. 6 (1985, pp. 41-58). The shift in the source areas for slaves sold in the Iberian Peninsula after 1450 is discussed by A.J.R. Russel-Wood, "Iberian Expansion and the Issue of Black Slavery: Changing Portuguese Attitudes, 1440-1770," *American Historical Review*, vol. 83 (1978), pp. 16-42.
8. The enslavement of native Americans was not only extensive but also a complicated process that involved the continuation of aboriginal practices, as well as the appearance of individuals and social formations, especially in Central America, that sold slaves to the Spaniards. see David R. Radell, "The Indian Slave Trade and Population of Nicaragua during the Sixteenth Century," in William M. Denevan (ed.), *The Native Populations of the Americas in 1492* (Madison: The University of Wisconsin Press, 1976) pp. 67-76; William L. Sherman, *Forced Native Labor in Sixteenth-Century Central America* (Lincoln and London: University of Nebraska Press, 1979), pp. 15-84; Murdo J. MacLeod, *Spanish Central America: A Socioeconomic History, 1520-1720* (Berkeley, Los Angeles, and London: University of California Press, 1973) pp. 23-67; Linda Newson, *The Cost of Conquest: Indian Decline in Honduras under Spanish Rule* (Boulder and London: Westview Press, 1986), pp. 15-127; Linda Newson, *Aboriginal and Spanish Colonial Trinidad: A Study in Culture Contact* (London, New York, and San Francisco: Academic Press, 1976), pp. 17-115; Stuart B. Schwartz, "Indian Labor and New World Plantations: European Demands and Indian Responses in Northeastern Brazil," *American Historical Review*, vol. 83 (1978), pp. 43-79; Steven Stern, "Feudalism, Capitalism, and the World-System in the Perspective of Latin America and the Caribbean," *American Historical Review*, vol. 93 (1988), pp. 829-872; Santiago Sobrequés Vidal, "La Epoca de los Reyes Católicos," in Jaime Vicens Vives (ed.), *Historia de España y América* (Barcelona: Editorial Vicens-Vives, 1961), vol. 3, pp. 458-460.
 9. Irving Rouse, "The Carib," in Julian H. Steward (ed.), *The Handbook of South American Indians*, vol. 4, *The Circum-Caribbean Tribes* (Washington: Smithsonian Institution, Bureau of American Ethnology Bulletin 143, 1948), p. 549.
 10. Irving Rouse, "Prehistory of the West Indies," *Science*, vol. 144 (1964), p. 502.
 11. Sued Badillo, *op cit.*, 1978, pp. 113-114.
 12. *Ibid.*, pp. 80-81.
 13. *Ibid.*, pp. 91-92, 103-111.
 14. Daniel Brinton, "Remarks on the Arawak MSS. Grammar and Vocabulary by Schultz," *Proceedings of the American Philosophical Society*, vol. 11 (1869), pp. 113-114, noted that differences between Taino languages of the Greater Antilles and the Arawak languages, spoken between the Amazon and the Orinoco, were no greater than those between Chaucerian and modern English. He used the linguistic evidence to argue that people entered the Antilles from the South American mainland, rather than from the north or the west. The languages of the Lesser Antilles, with the exceptions noted above, are assigned to Arawak language family by Cestmír Loukotka, *Classification of South American Indian Languages* (Los Angeles: Latin American Center, University of California, 1968), pp. 125-126, 198, and by Marshall Durbin, "A Survey of the Carib Language Family,"

- in Harriet Manelis Klein and Louisa R. Stark (eds.), *South American Indian Languages: Retrospect and Prospect* (Austin: University of Texas Press, 1985), pp.340-341.
15. The observations of Las Casas and Oviedo are noted by Emiliano Tejera, *Palabras Indígenas de la Isla de Santo Domingo* (Santo Domingo: Academia Dominicana de la Lengua, 1951), p. 346; and Daniel Brinton, "The Arawakan Language of Guiana in its Linguistic and Ethnological Relations," *Transactions of the American Philosophical Society*, vol. 14 (1871), p. 436.
 16. Douglas R. Taylor and Bernard J. Hoff, "The Linguistic repertory of Island-Carib in the Seventeenth Century: The Men's Language—a Carib Pidgin?" *International Journal of American Linguistics*, vol. 46 (1980), pp. 301-312; Douglas M. Taylor, *Languages of the West Indies* (Baltimore: John Hopkins University Press, 1978); Hulme, *op cit.*, pp.61-64.
 17. Loutotka, *op cit.*, p.125.
 18. Sued Badillo, 1978, *op cit.*, pp. 113-129, 131-134, 143-151.
 19. For example, William G. Hagg, "Pottery Typology in Certain Lesser Antilles," *American Antiquity*, vol. 31 (1965), pp. 242-245.
 20. Louis Allaire, "On the Historicity of Carib Migrations in the Lesser Antilles," *American Antiquity*, vol. 45 (1980), pp. 238-245; Ricardo E. Alegría, *El Uso de Terminología Etnohistórica para Designar las Culturas Aborígenes de las Antillas* (Valladolid: Seminario de Historia de América, Universidad de Valladolid, 1981) and his *Ball Courts and Ceremonial Plazas in the West Indies* (New Haven: Yale University Publications in Anthropology no. 79, 1983).
 21. Irving Rouse, *Migrations in Prehistory* (New Haven and London: Yale University Press, 1986), pp. 106-156.
 22. Irving Rouse, *Prehistory in Haiti: A Study in Method* (New Haven: Yale University Publications in Anthropology no. 21, 1939).
 23. Some premises of this conceptual and analytical framework can be gleaned from Rouse's writings: 1986, *op cit.*, pp. 1-18; 157-182; *Introduction to Prehistory: A Systematic Approach* (New York: McGraw-Hill, 1972); and "Pattern and Process in West Indian Archaeology," *World Archaeology*, vol. 9 (1977), pp.1-11.
 24. See, for example, Marcio Veloz Maggiolo, *Medioambiente y Adaptación Humana en la Prehistoria de Santo Domingo*, 2 vols. (Santo Domingo: Universidad Autónoma de Santo Domingo, 1976-1977); Mario Sanoja and Iraida Bargas, *Antiguas Formaciones y Modos de Producción Venezolanos* (Caracas: Monte Avila Editores, 1978); Oscar M. Fonseca Zamora (ed), *Hacia una Arqueología Social* (Vieques: Actas del Primer Simposio de la Fundación de Arqueología del Caribe, 1984); Ernesto Tabío and Estrella Rey, *Prehistoria de Cuba* (La Habana: Departamento de Antropología, Academia de Ciencias, 1966); and Roberto Cassá, *Los Tainos de la Española* (Santo Domingo: editora "Alfa y Omega," 1974).
 25. Some of the most compelling evidence for rejecting both the analytical frame-work and the Taino-Carib distinction was provided by Rouse's protégé, the late Gary Vescelius, an archaeologist who conducted extensive and intensive investigations on the late pre-Columbian societies of the Virgin Islands, Vieques, and Puerto Rico. He concluded: (i) that only minor, regional or local differences in pottery style existed between alleged Carib inhabitants of the Virgin Islands and Vieques and the Taino populations of Puerto Rico; and (ii) that the methodology employed by Rouse's school was not sensitive enough to pick up these socially significant differences (Gary Vescelius, personal communication).

26. This book is an elaboration of Moscoso's unpublished doctoral dissertation, *The Development of Tribal Society in the Caribbean* (Ph.D. Dissertation on Sociology, State University of New York, Binghamton, 1981), which is available through University Microfilms International, Order No. 8116149. Ann Arbor, Michigan.
27. Moscoso, 1986, *op cit.*, pp. 9-27.
28. Kalvero Oberg, "Types of Social Structure among the Lowland Tribes of South and Central America," *American Anthropologist*, vol. 57 (1955), pp. 472-487, took notice of the historic specificity of native American social formations; he referred to the Taino of the Greater Antilles as "politically organized chiefdoms" and contrasted them with "feudal type states," like the Nicaraos of Nicaragua or the Chibcha of Colombia. Historic specificity was obscured by the notion of "theocratic chiefdoms" introduced by Julian H. Steward and Louis C. Faron, *The Native Peoples of South America* (New York: McGraw-Hill Book Company, 1959), pp. 248-249. For a discussion of the place of gender in the Taino chiefdoms, see Jalil Sued Badillo, *La mujer indígena y su sociedad*, 2nd ed. (Río Piedras: Editorial Cultural, 1980) and "Las Cacicas Indoantillanas," *Revista del Instituto de Cultura Puertorriqueña* no. 87 (1985).
29. Tabio and Rey, *op cit.*, pp. 86-87, 175-181; Moscoso, 1986, *op cit.*, 118-123.
30. Luis A. Chanlatte Baik, *Arqueología de Vieques* (Santo Domingo: Editora Corripo, 1983); Luis Chanlatte Baik and Yvonne M. Narganes Storde, *Vieques-Puerto Rico: Asiento de una Nueva Cultura Aborigen Antillana* (Santo Domingo: Impresora Corporán, 1983); and Thomas C. Patterson, "Vieques and the Re-interpretation of Caribbean Pre-Columbian History," *Caribbean Studies*, vol. 20, nos. 3-4 (1988), pp. 94-96.
31. Jalil Sued Badillo and Angel López Cantos, *Puerto Rico Negro* (Río Piedras: Editorial Cultural, 1986).
32. Antonio Domínguez Ortiz, "La Esclavitud en Castilla durante la Edad Moderna," *Estudios de Historia Social de España*, tomo 2 (1952), pp. 376-379; Ruth Pike, "Sevillian Society in the Sixteenth Century: Slaves and Freedmen," *Hispanic American Historical Review*, vol. 47 (1965), pp. 344-359; Alfonso Franco Silva, *La Esclavitud en Sevilla y su Tierra a Fines de la Edad Media* (Sevilla: Diputación Provincial de Sevilla, 1979), p. 257; A.C. de C.M. Saunders, *A Social History of Black Slaves and Freedmen in Portugal, 1441-1555* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1982); and Russell-Wood, *op cit.*, pp. 19-22.
33. Jaime Vicens Vives, *An Economic History of Spain* (Princeton: Princeton University Press, 1969), pp. 292, 299, 321, 322, 335; and Elliot, *op cit.*, pp. 117-122.
34. Sued Badillo and López Cantos, *op cit.*, pp. 36-42; Juan Gutiérrez Nieto, "La Estructura Castizo Estamental de la Sociedad Castellana del Siglo XVI," *Hispania*, tomo 37, no. 125 (1973), p. 33; and Hugo Tolentino, *Raza e Historia en Santo Domingo*, Tomo 1: *Los Orígenes del Prejuicio Racial en América* (Santo Domingo: Editora de la Universidad Autónoma de Santo Domingo, 1974), pp. 17-61.
35. Sued Badillo and López Cantos, *op cit.*, pp. 42-45; Mervyn Ratekin, "The Early Sugar Industry in Española," *Hispanic American Historical Review*, vol. 34 (1954), pp. 1-19; and Leslie B. Simpson, *The Emancipation of the Indian Slaves and the Resettlement of the Freedmen, 1548-1553* (Berkeley: Iberamerica, no. 16, 1940).
36. E.E. Rich, "Colonial Settlement and its Labour Problems," in E.E. Rich and C.H. Wilson (eds.), *the Cambridge Economic*

- History of Europe* (Cambridge: At the University Press, 1967), vol. 4, p. 320; and Carlos Esteban Dieve, *La Esclavitud del Negro en Santo Domingo, 1492-1844* (Santo Domingo: Museo del Hombre Dominicano, 1980), tomo 1, p. 19-21.
37. Sued Badillo and López Cantos, *op cit.*, pp. 45-50.
38. Elliott, *op cit.*, pp. 70-74.
39. Sued Badillo and López Cantos, *op cit.*, pp. 93-105, 143.
40. *Ibid.*, pp. 156-168 Deive, *op cit.*, pp. 303-339; Frank Moya Pons, *Historia Colonial De Santo Domingo* (Santiago: Universidad Católica Madre y Maestra, 1976), pp. 71-90.
41. Sued Badillo and López Cantos, *Ibid.*, pp. 171-188; Jalil Sued Badillo, *La Mujer Indígena y su Sociedad*, 2nd ed. (Río Piedras: Editorial Cultural, 1980) and "Beatriz, India Cubana Cimarrona," *Casa de las Americas*, no. 165 (1987), pp. 11-26; Ralph H. Vigil, "Negro Slaves and Rebels in the Spanish Possessions, 1503-1558," *Historian*, vol. 33 (1971), pp. 637-655; Leslie B. Routs, Jr., *The African Experience in Spanish America* (Cambridge: Cambridge University press, 1976); and Carlos Federico Guillot, *Negros Rebeldes y Negros Cimarrones: Perfil Afroamericano en la Historia del Nuevo Mundo durante el Siglo XVI* (Buenos Aires: Librería y Editorial "El Ateneo," 1961).
42. Sued Badillo and López Cantos, *Ibid.*, pp. 174-175.
43. C. H. Haring, *The Buccaneers in the West Indies in the XVII Century* (London: Methuen and Company, Ltd., 1910), p. 57.
44. A similar point is made by most of the essays in Nicholas Canny and Anthony Padgen (eds.), *Colonial Identity in the Atlantic World, 1500-1800* (Princeton: Princeton University Press, 1987).